

The point at which the transition from the crab to the sideslip is made is dependent upon pilot familiarity with the airplane and experience. With high skill and experience levels, the transition can be made during the round out just before touchdown. With lesser skill and experience levels, the transition is made at increasing distances from the runway. Some multiengine airplanes (as some single-engine airplanes) have AFM/POH limitations against slips in excess of a certain time period; 30 seconds, for example. This is to prevent engine power loss from fuel starvation as the fuel in the tank of the lowered wing flows toward the wingtip, away from the fuel pickup point. This time limit should be observed if the wing-low method is utilized.

Some multiengine pilots prefer to use differential power to assist in crosswind landings. The asymmetrical thrust produces a yawing moment little different from that produced by the rudder. When the upwind wing is lowered, power on the upwind engine is increased to prevent the airplane from turning. This alternate technique is completely acceptable, but most pilots feel they can react to changing wind conditions quicker with rudder and aileron than throttle movement. This is especially true with turbocharged engines where the throttle response may lag momentarily. The differential power technique should be practiced with an instructor before being attempted alone.

Short-Field Approach and Landing

The primary elements of a short-field approach and landing do not differ significantly from a normal approach and landing. Many manufacturers do not publish short-field landing techniques or performance charts in the AFM/POH. In the absence of specific short-field approach and landing procedures, the airplane should be operated as recommended in the AFM/POH. No operations should be conducted contrary to the AFM/POH recommendations.

The emphasis in a short-field approach is on configuration (full flaps), a stabilized approach with a constant angle of descent, and precise airspeed control. As part of a short-field approach and landing procedure, some AFM/POHs recommend a slightly slower than normal approach airspeed. If no such slower speed is published, use the AFM/POH-recommended normal approach speed.

Full flaps are used to provide the steepest approach angle. If obstacles are present, the approach should be planned so that no drastic power reductions are required after they are cleared. The power should be smoothly reduced to idle in the round out prior to touchdown. Pilots should keep in mind that the propeller blast blows over the wings providing some lift in addition to thrust. Reducing power significantly, just after obstacle clearance, usually results in a sudden, high sink rate that may lead to a hard landing. After the short-field touchdown, maximum stopping effort is achieved by retracting the wing flaps, adding back pressure to the elevator/stabilator, and applying heavy braking. However, if the runway length permits, the wing flaps should be left in the extended position until the airplane has been stopped clear of the runway. There is always a significant risk of retracting the landing gear instead of the wing flaps when flap retraction is attempted on the landing rollout.

Landing conditions that involve a short field, high winds, or strong crosswinds are just about the only situations where flap retraction on the landing rollout should be considered. When there is an operational need to retract the flaps just after touchdown, it needs to be done deliberately with the flap handle positively identified before it is moved.

Go-Around

When the decision to go around is made, the throttles should be advanced to takeoff power and pitch adjusted to arrest the sink rate. With adequate airspeed, the airplane should be placed in a climb pitch attitude. These actions, which are accomplished sequentially, arrest the sink rate and place the airplane in the proper attitude for transition to a climb. The initial target airspeed is V_Y or V_X if obstructions are present. With sufficient airspeed, the flaps should be retracted from full to an intermediate position and the landing gear retracted when there is a positive rate of climb and no chance of runway contact. The remaining flaps should then be retracted. [Figure 13-11]

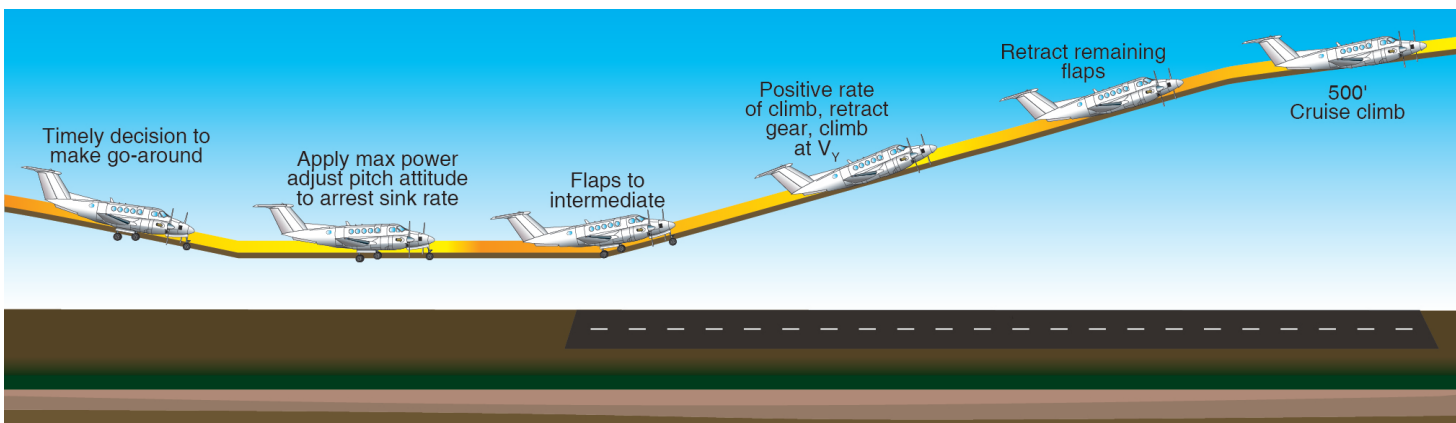


Figure 13-11. Go-around procedure.

If the go-around was initiated due to conflicting traffic on the ground or aloft, the pilot should consider maneuvering to the side to keep the conflicting traffic in sight. This may involve a slight turn to offset from the runway/landing area.

If the airplane was in trim for the landing approach when the go-around was commenced, it soon requires a great deal of forward elevator/stabilator pressure as the airplane accelerates away in a climb. The pilot should apply appropriate forward pressure to maintain the desired pitch attitude. Trim should be commenced immediately. The balked landing checklist should be reviewed as work load permits.

Flaps should be retracted before the landing gear for two reasons. First, on most airplanes, full flaps produce more drag than the extended landing gear. Secondly, the airplane tends to settle somewhat with flap retraction, and the landing gear should be down in the event of an inadvertent, momentary touchdown.

Many multiengine airplanes have a landing gear retraction speed significantly less than the extension speed. Care should be exercised during the go-around not to exceed the retraction speed. If the pilot desires to return for a landing, it is essential to re-accomplish the entire before-landing checklist. An interruption to a pilot's habit patterns, such as a go-around, is a classic scenario for a subsequent gear-up landing.

The preceding discussion about performing a go-around assumes that the maneuver was initiated from normal approach speeds or faster. If the go-around was initiated from a low airspeed, the initial pitch up to a climb attitude should be tempered with the necessity to maintain adequate flying speed throughout the maneuver. Examples of where this applies include a go-around initiated from the landing round out or recovery from a bad bounce, as well as a go-around initiated due to an inadvertent approach to a stall. The first priority is always to maintain control and obtain adequate flying speed. A few moments of level or near level flight may be required as the airplane accelerates up to climb speed.

Engine Inoperative Flight Principles

There are two main considerations for OEI operations—*performance and control*. Multiengine pilots learn to operate the airplane for maximum *rate of climb performance* at the blue radial indicated airspeed by training to fly without sideslip. Pilots also learn to recognize and recover from loss of *directional control* associated with the red radial indicated airspeed by performing a V_{MC} demonstration. Since the object of a V_{MC} demonstration is not performance, sideslip occurs during the maneuver. Detailed discussion on both the loss of directional control and maximum OEI climb performance follows.

Derivation of V_{MC}

V_{MC} is a speed established by the manufacturer, published in the AFM/POH, and marked on most airspeed indicators with a red radial line. A knowledgeable and competent multiengine pilot understands that V_{MC} is **not** a fixed airspeed under all conditions. V_{MC} is a fixed airspeed only for the very specific set of circumstances under which it was determined during aircraft certification. In reality, V_{MC} varies with a variety of factors as outlined below. The V_{MC} noted in practice and demonstration, or in actual OEI operation, could be less or even greater than the published value, depending on conditions and pilot technique.

Historically, in aircraft certification, V_{MC} is the sea level calibrated airspeed at which, when the critical engine is suddenly made inoperative, it is possible to maintain control of the airplane with that engine still inoperative and then maintain straight flight at the same speed with an angle of bank not more than 5°.

The foregoing refers to the determination of V_{MC} under *dynamic* conditions. This technique is only used by highly experienced test pilots during aircraft certification. It is unsafe to be attempted outside of these circumstances.

In aircraft certification, there is also a determination of V_{MC} under *static*, or steady-state conditions. If there is a difference between the dynamic and static speeds, the higher of the two is published as V_{MC} . The *static* determination is simply the ability to maintain straight flight at V_{MC} with a bank angle of not more than 5°. This more closely resembles the V_{MC} demonstration task in the practical test for a multiengine rating.

The AFM/POH-published V_{MC} is determined with the *critical* engine inoperative. The critical engine is the engine whose failure had the most adverse effect on directional control. On twins with each engine rotating in conventional, clockwise rotation as viewed from the pilot's seat, the critical engine will be the left engine.

Multiengine airplanes are subject to P-factor just as single-engine airplanes are. The descending propeller blade of each engine will produce greater thrust than the ascending blade when the airplane is operated under power and at positive angles of attack. The descending propeller blade of the right engine is also a greater distance from the center of gravity, and therefore has a longer moment arm than the descending propeller blade of the left engine. As a result, failure of the left engine will result in the most asymmetrical thrust (adverse yaw) as the right engine will be providing the remaining thrust. [Figure 13-12]

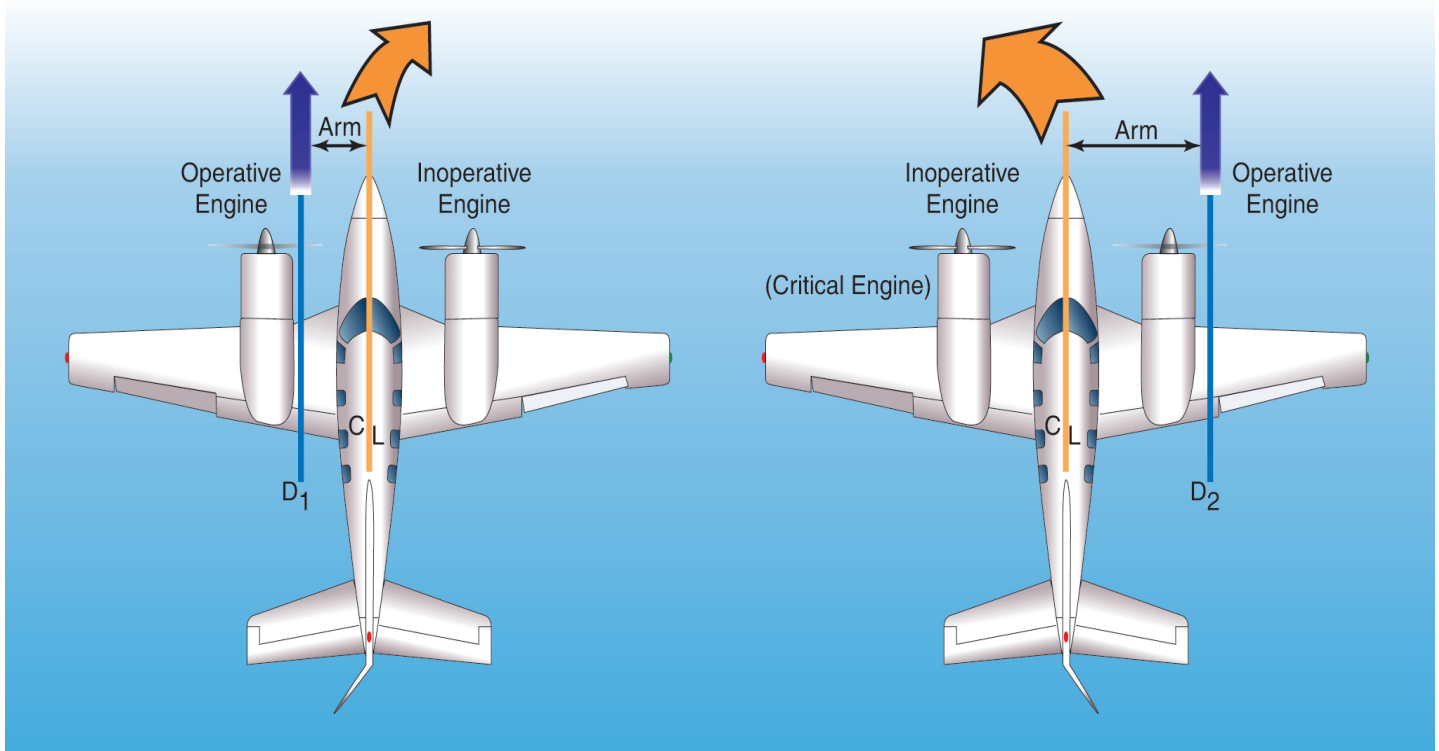


Figure 13-12. Forces created during single-engine operation.

Many twins are designed with a counter-rotating right engine. With this design, the degree of asymmetrical thrust is the same with either engine inoperative. No engine is more critical than the other, and a V_{MC} demonstration may be performed with either engine windmilling.

The following bullets describe the way several factors affect V_{MC} speed for those multiengine airplanes often used during training, which were certified in accordance with historical 14 CFR part 23, section 23.149. They also describe the conditions used to determine the manufacturer's published speed. Historically, in aircraft certification, *dynamic* V_{MC} has been determined under the following conditions outlined in historical 14 CFR part 23, section 23.149:

- **Maximum available takeoff power initially on each engine (section 23.149(b)(1)).** V_{MC} increases as power is increased on the operating engine. With normally aspirated engines, V_{MC} is highest at takeoff power and sea level, and decreases with altitude. With turbocharged engines, takeoff power, and therefore V_{MC} , remains constant with increases in altitude up to the engine's critical altitude (the altitude where the engine can no longer maintain 100 percent power). Above the critical altitude, V_{MC} decreases just as it would with a normally aspirated engine whose critical altitude is sea level. In order to avoid accidents, test pilots conduct V_{MC} tests at a variety of altitudes, and the results of those tests are then extrapolated to a single, sea level value.
- **All propeller controls in the recommended takeoff position throughout V_{MC} determination (section 23.149(b)(5)).** V_{MC} increases with increased drag on the inoperative engine. V_{MC} is highest, therefore, when the critical engine propeller is windmilling at the low pitch, high rpm blade angle. V_{MC} is normally determined with the critical engine propeller windmilling in the takeoff position, unless the engine is equipped with an autofeather system.
- **Most unfavorable weight and center-of-gravity position (section 23.149(b)).** V_{MC} increases as the center-of-gravity (CG) is moved aft. The moment arm of the rudder is reduced, and therefore its effectivity is reduced, as the CG is moved aft. For a typical light twin, the aft-most CG limit is the most unfavorable CG position. Historically, 14 CFR part 23 calls for V_{MC} to be determined at the most unfavorable weight. For twins certificated under CAR 3 or early 14 CFR part 23, the weight at which V_{MC} was determined was not specified. V_{MC} increases as weight is reduced. [Figure 13-13]

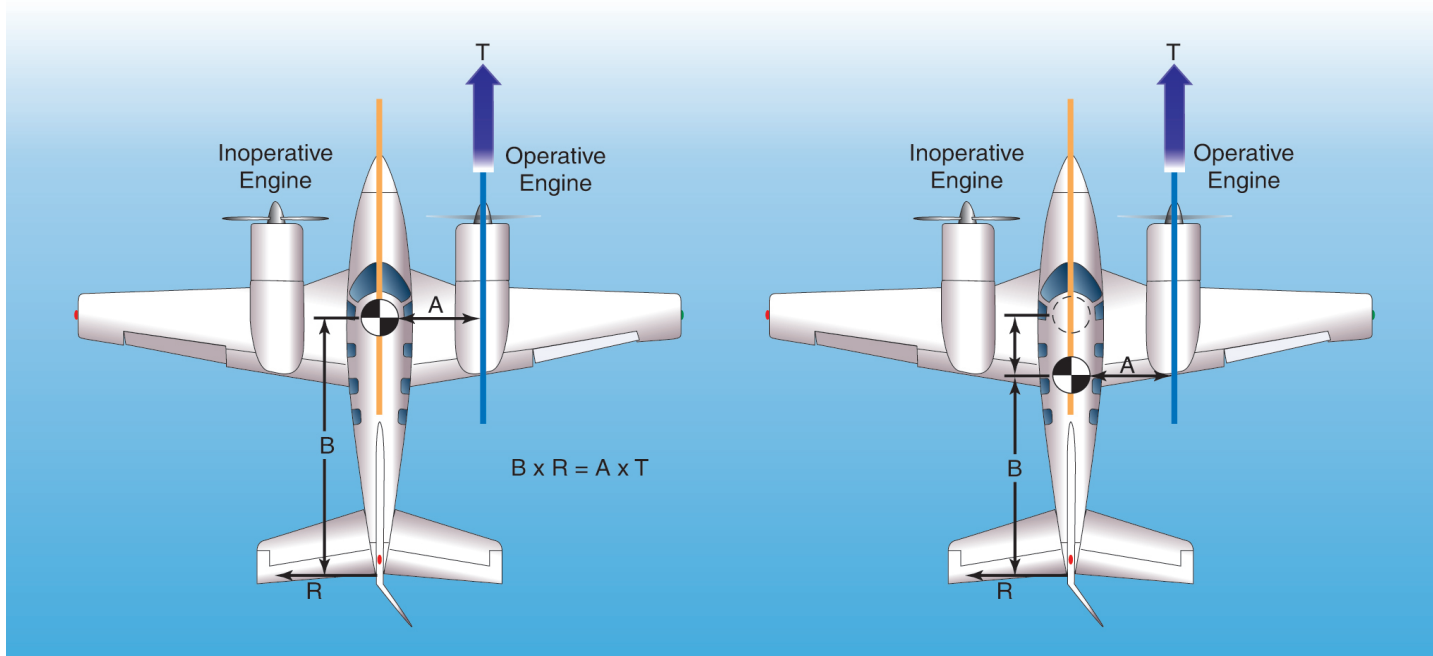


Figure 13-13. Effect of CG location on yaw.

- **Landing gear retracted (section 23.149(b)(4)).** V_{MC} increases when the landing gear is retracted. Extended landing gear aids directional stability, which tends to decrease V_{MC} .
- **Flaps in the takeoff position (section 23.149(b)(3)).** This normally includes wing flaps and cowl flaps. For most twins, this will be 0° of flaps.
- **Airplane trimmed for takeoff (section 23.149(b)(2)).**
- **Airplane airborne and the ground effect negligible (section 23.149(b)).**
- **Maximum of 5° angle of bank (section 23.149(a)).** V_{MC} is highly sensitive to bank angle. To prevent claims of an unrealistically low V_{MC} speed in aircraft certification, the manufacturer is permitted to use a maximum of a 5° bank angle toward the operative engine. The horizontal component of lift generated by the bank balances the side force from the rudder, rather than using sideslip to do so. Sideslip requires more rudder deflection, which in turn increases V_{MC} . The bank angle works in the manufacturer's favor in lowering V_{MC} since using high bank angles reduces required rudder deflection. However, this method may result in unsafe flight from both the large sideslip and the need to increase the angle of attack in order to maintain the vertical component of lift.

V_{MC} increases as bank angle decreases. In fact, V_{MC} may increase more than 3 knots for each degree of bank reduction between 5° and wings-level. Since V_{MC} was determined with up to 5° of bank, loss of directional control may be experienced at speeds almost 20 knots above published V_{MC} when the wings are held level.

The 5° bank angle maximum is a historical limit imposed upon manufacturers in aircraft certification. The 5° bank does not inherently establish zero sideslip or best single-engine climb performance. Zero sideslip, and therefore best single-engine climb performance, may occur at bank angles less than 5° . The determination of V_{MC} in certification is solely concerned with the minimum speed for directional control under a very specific set of circumstances, and not the optimum airplane attitude or configuration for climb performance.

During *dynamic* V_{MC} determination in aircraft certification, cuts of the critical engine using the mixture control are performed by flight test pilots while gradually reducing the speed with each attempt. V_{MC} is the minimum speed at which directional control could be maintained within 20° of the original entry heading when a cut of the critical engine was made. During such tests, the climb angle with both engines operating was high, and the pitch attitude following the engine cut had to be quickly lowered to regain the initial speed. Transitioning pilots should understand that attempting to demonstrate V_{MC} with an engine cut from high power, or intentionally failing an engine at speeds less than V_{SSE} creates a high likelihood for loss of control and an accident.

V_{MC} Demo

The actual demonstration of V_{MC} and recovery in flight training more closely resembles *static* V_{MC} determination in aircraft certification. For a demonstration that avoids the hazard of unintended contact with the ground, the pilot selects an altitude that will allow performance of the maneuver at least 3,000 feet AGL. The following description assumes a twin with non-counter-rotating engines, where the left engine is critical.

With the landing gear retracted and the flaps set to the takeoff position, the pilot slows the airplane to approximately 10 knots above V_{SSE} or V_{YSE} (whichever is higher) and trims for takeoff. For the remainder of the maneuver, the trim setting remains unaltered. The pilot selects an entry heading and sets high rpm on both propeller controls. Power on the left engine is throttled back to idle as the right engine power is advanced to the takeoff setting. The landing gear warning horn will sound as long as a throttle is retarded, however the pilot listens carefully for the stall warning horn or watches for the stall warning light. The left yawing and rolling moment of the asymmetrical thrust is counteracted primarily with right rudder. A bank angle of up to 5° (a right bank in this case) may be established as appropriate for the airplane make and model.

While maintaining entry heading, the pitch attitude is slowly increased to decelerate at a rate of 1 knot per second (no faster). As the airplane slows and control effectiveness decays, the pilot counteracts the increasing yawing tendency with additional rudder pressure. Aileron displacement will also increase in order to maintain the established bank. An airspeed is soon reached where full right rudder travel and up to a 5° right bank can no longer counteract the asymmetrical thrust, and the airplane will begin to yaw uncontrollably to the left.

The moment the pilot first recognizes the uncontrollable yaw, or experiences any symptom associated with a stall, the pilot simultaneously retards the throttle for the operating engine to stop the yaw and lowers the pitch attitude to regain speed. Recovery is made to straight flight on the entry heading at V_{SSE} or V_{YSE}. The pilot increases power to the operating engine, and demonstrates controlled flight before restoring symmetrical power.

To keep the foregoing description simple, there were several important background details that were not covered. The rudder pressure during the demonstration can be quite high. During certification under historical 14 CFR part 23, section 23.149(e), 150 pounds of force was permitted. Most twins will run out of rudder travel long before 150 pounds of pressure is required. Still, the rudder pressure used during any V_{MC} demonstration may seem considerable.

Maintaining altitude is not a criterion in accomplishing this maneuver. This is a demonstration of controllability, not performance. Many airplanes will lose (or gain) altitude during the demonstration. Remaining at or above a minimum of 3,000 feet AGL throughout the maneuver is considered to be effective risk mitigation of certain hazards.

V_{MC} Demo Stall Avoidance

As discussed earlier, with normally aspirated engines, V_{MC} decreases with altitude. Stalling speed (V_S), however, remains the same. Except for a few models, published V_{MC} is almost always higher than V_S. At sea level there is usually a margin of several knots between V_{MC} and V_S, but the margin decreases with altitude, and at some altitude, V_{MC} and V_S are the same. [Figure 13-14]

Should a stall occur while the airplane is under asymmetrical power, a spin entry is likely. The yawing moment induced from asymmetrical thrust is little different from that induced by full rudder in an intentional spin in the appropriate model of single-engine airplane. In this case, however, the airplane will depart controlled flight in the direction of the idle engine, not in the direction of applied rudder. Twins are not required to demonstrate recoveries from spins, and their spin recovery characteristics are generally very poor.

Where V_S is encountered before V_{MC}, the departure from controlled flight might be quite sudden, with strong yawing and rolling tendencies to the inverted orientation and a spin entry. Therefore, during a V_{MC} demonstration, if there are any symptoms of an impending stall such as a stall warning light or horn, airframe or elevator buffet, or sudden loss of control effectiveness; the pilot should terminate the maneuver immediately by reducing the angle of attack as the throttle is retarded and return the airplane to the entry airspeed. Note that noise within the flight deck may mask the sound of the stall warning horn.

While the V_{MC} demonstration shows the earliest onset of a loss of directional control when performed in accordance with the foregoing procedures, avoid a stalled condition. Avoid stalls with asymmetrical thrust, such that the V_{MC} demonstration does not degrade into a single-engine stall. A V_{MC} demonstration that is allowed to degrade into a single-engine stall with high asymmetrical thrust may result in an unrecoverable loss of control and a fatal accident.

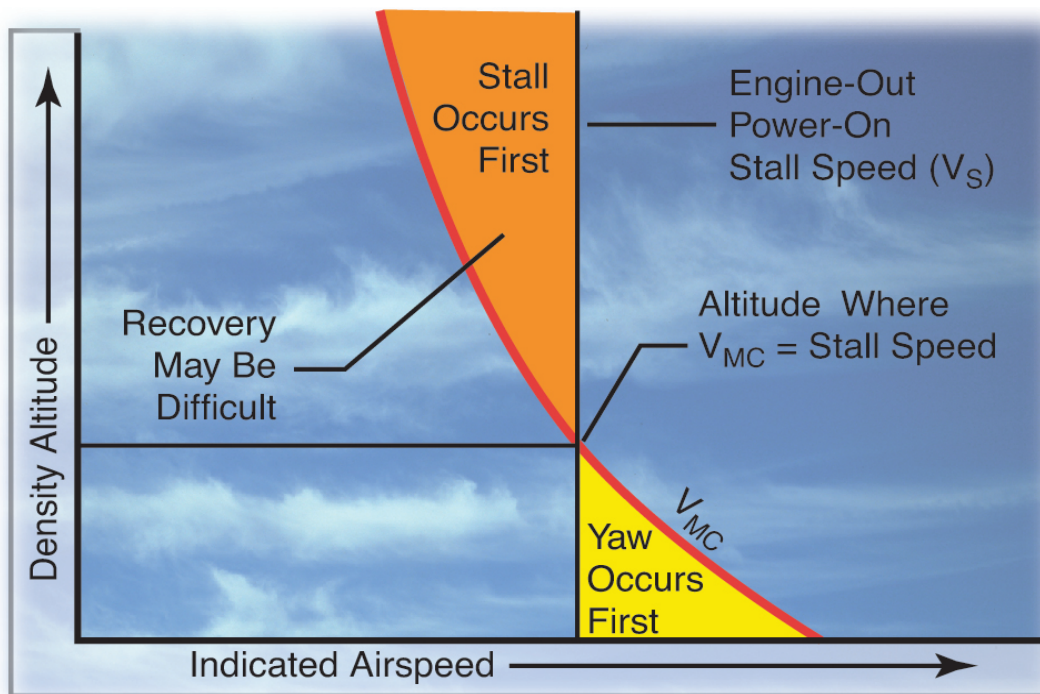


Figure 13-14. Graph depicting relationship of V_{MC} to V_S .

An actual demonstration of V_{MC} may not be possible under certain conditions of density altitude, or with airplanes whose V_{MC} is equal to or less than V_S . Under those circumstances, as a training technique, a demonstration of V_{MC} may safely be conducted by artificially limiting rudder travel to simulate maximum available rudder. A speed well above V_S (approximately 20 knots) is recommended when limiting rudder travel.

The rudder limiting technique avoids the hazards of spinning as a result of stalling with high asymmetrical power, yet is effective in demonstrating the loss of directional control.

To reduce the risk of a loss of control, avoid performing any V_{MC} demonstration from a high pitch attitude with both engines operating and then reducing power on one engine.

OEI Climb Performance

Best OEI climb performance is obtained at V_{YSE} with maximum available power and minimum drag. After the flaps and landing gear have been retracted and the propeller of the failed engine feathered, a key element in best climb performance is minimizing sideslip.

For any airplane, sideslip can be confirmed through the use of a yaw string. A yaw string is a piece of string or yarn approximately 18 to 36 inches in length taped to the base of the windshield or to the nose near the windshield along the airplane centerline. In two-engine coordinated flight, the relative wind causes the string to align itself with the longitudinal axis of the airplane, and it positions itself straight up the center of the windshield. This is zero sideslip. Experimentation with slips and skids vividly displays the location of the relative wind. A particular combination of aileron and rudder also establishes zero sideslip during OEI flight. Adequate altitude, flying speed, and caution should be maintained if attempting these maneuvers.

With a single-engine airplane or a multiengine airplane with both engines operative, sideslip is eliminated when the ball of the turn and bank instrument is centered. This is a condition of zero sideslip, and the airplane is presenting its smallest possible profile to the relative wind. As a result, drag is at its minimum. Pilots know this as coordinated flight.

In a multiengine airplane with an inoperative engine, the centered ball is no longer the indicator of zero sideslip due to asymmetric thrust. In fact, there is no flight deck instrument that directly indicates conditions for zero sideslip. In the absence of a yaw string, the pilot needs to place the airplane at a predetermined bank angle and ball position. Since the AFM/POH performance charts for one engine inoperative flight were determined at zero sideslip, this technique should be used to obtain the charted OEI performance. There are two different control inputs that can be used to counteract the asymmetric thrust of a failed engine:

1. Yaw from the rudder
2. The horizontal component of lift that results from bank with the ailerons

Used individually, neither is correct. Used together in the proper combination, zero sideslip and best climb performance are achieved.

Three different scenarios of airplane control inputs are presented below. The first two are not correct and can increase the risk of a loss of control. They are presented to illustrate the reasons for the zero sideslip approach to best climb performance.

1. Engine inoperative flight with wings level and ball centered requires large rudder input toward the operative engine. [Figure 13-15] The result is a moderate sideslip toward the inoperative engine. Climb performance is reduced by the moderate sideslip. With wings level, V_{MC} is significantly higher than published as there is no horizontal component of lift available to help the rudder combat asymmetrical thrust.

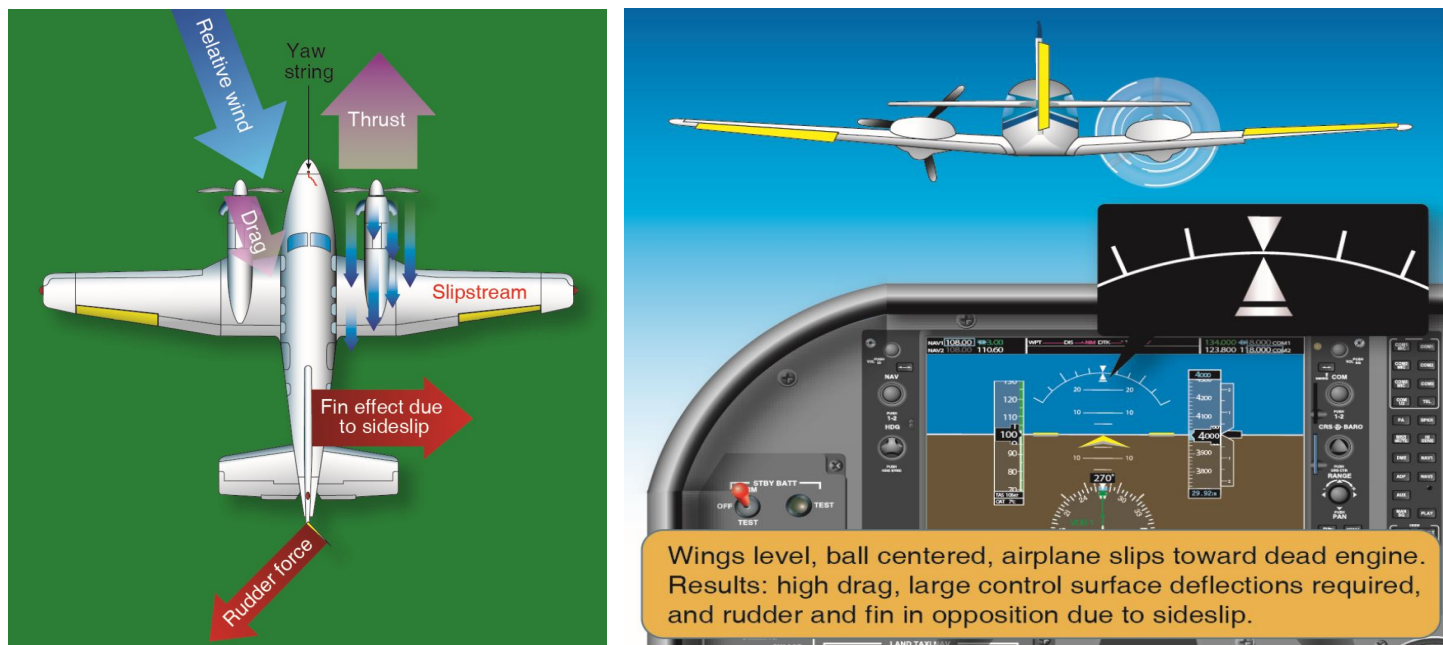


Figure 13-15. Wings level engine-out flight.

2. Engine inoperative flight using ailerons alone requires an 8–10° bank angle toward the operative engine. [Figure 13-16] This assumes no rudder input, the ball is displaced well toward the operative engine, and climb performance is greatly reduced by the large sideslip toward the operative engine. Due to the increased risk of loss of control, instructors should not normally demonstrate this.

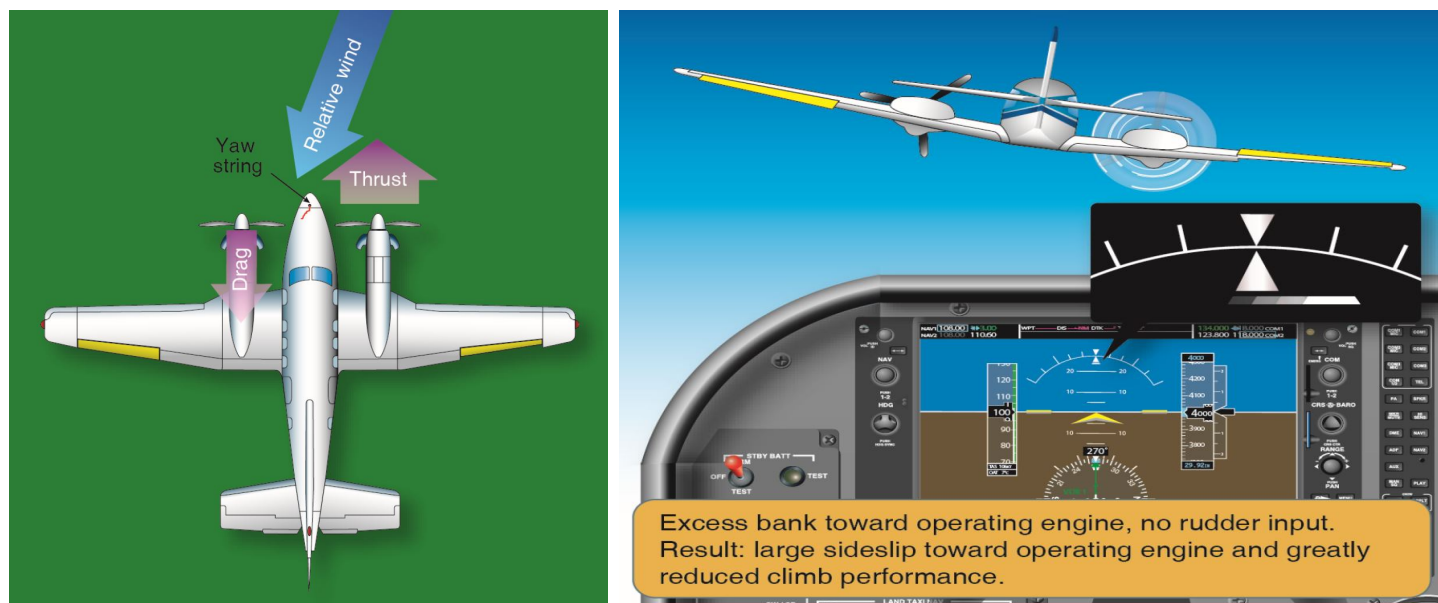


Figure 13-16. Excessive bank engine-out flight.

3. Rudder and ailerons used together in the proper combination result in a bank of approximately 2° toward the operative engine. The ball is displaced approximately one-third to one-half toward the operative engine. The result is zero sideslip and maximum climb performance. [Figure 13-17] Any attitude other than zero sideslip increases drag, decreasing performance. V_{MC} under these circumstances is higher than published, as less than the 5° bank certification limit is employed.

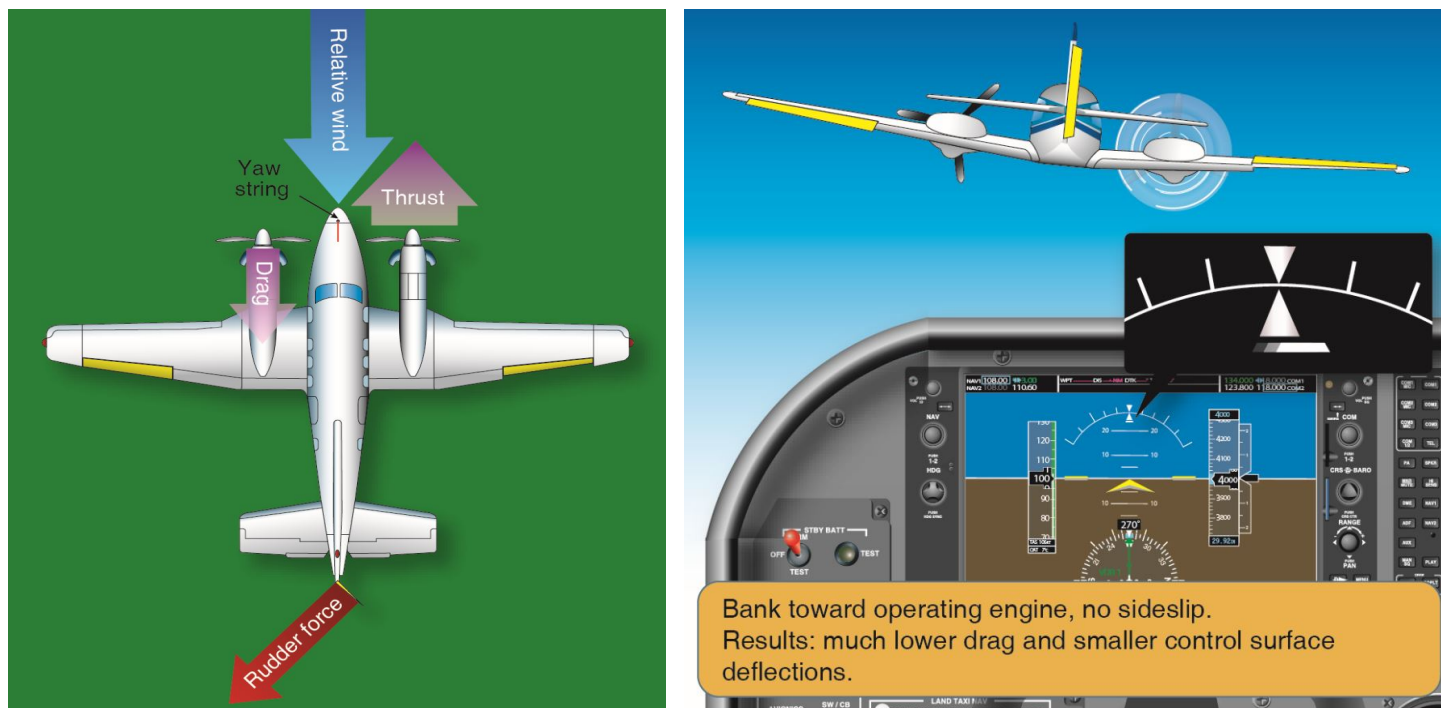


Figure 13-17. Zero sideslip engine-out flight.

When bank angle is plotted against climb performance for a hypothetical twin, zero sideslip results in the best (however marginal) climb performance or the least rate of descent. Whether the airplane can climb depends on the weight of the airplane, density altitude, and pilot technique. If the pilot uses zero bank (all rudder to counteract yaw), climb performance degrades as a result of moderate sideslip. Using bank angle alone (no rudder) severely degrades climb performance as a result of a large sideslip.

The precise condition of zero sideslip (bank angle and ball position) varies slightly from model to model and with available power and airspeed. If the airplane is not equipped with counter-rotating propellers, it also varies slightly with the engine failed due to P-factor. The foregoing zero sideslip recommendations apply to reciprocating engine multiengine airplanes flown at V_{YSE} with the inoperative engine feathered. The zero sideslip ball position for straight flight is also the zero sideslip position for turning flight.

The actual bank angle for zero sideslip varies among airplanes from one and one-half to two and one-half degrees. The position of the ball varies from one-third to one-half of a ball width from instrument center toward the operative engine.

During certain flight training scenarios, pilots and instructors simulate propeller feathering. *Zero thrust* means the pilot sets power on one engine such that drag from its rotating propeller equals that of a stopped feathered propeller. With an engine set to zero thrust (or feathered) and the airplane slowed to V_{YSE} , a climb with maximum power on the remaining engine reveals the precise bank angle and ball deflection required for zero sideslip and best climb performance. Again, if a yaw string were present, it aligns itself vertically on the windshield as an indication of zero sideslip. There are very minor changes from this attitude depending upon the engine failed (with non-counter-rotating propellers), power available, airspeed, and weight; but without more sensitive testing equipment, these changes are difficult to detect. The only significant difference would be the pitch attitude required to maintain V_{YSE} under different density altitude, power available, and weight conditions.

Low Altitude Engine Failure Scenarios

In OEI flight at low altitudes and airspeeds such as the initial climb after takeoff, pilots should operate the airplane so as to guard against the three major accident factors: (1) loss of directional control, (2) loss of performance, and (3) loss of flying speed. All have equal potential to be lethal. Loss of flying speed is not a factor, however, when the airplane is operated with due regard for directional control and performance.

A takeoff or go-around is the most critical time to suffer an engine failure. The airplane will be slow, close to the ground, and may even have landing gear and flaps extended. Altitude and time is minimal. Until feathered, the propeller of the failed engine is windmilling, producing a great deal of drag and yawing tendency. Airplane climb performance is marginal or even non-existent, and obstructions may lie ahead. An emergency contingency plan and safety brief should be clearly understood well before the takeoff roll commences. An engine failure before a predetermined airspeed or point results in an aborted takeoff. An engine failure after a certain airspeed and point, with the gear up, and climb performance assured result in a continued takeoff. With loss of an engine, it is paramount to maintain airplane control and comply with the manufacturer's recommended emergency procedures. Complete failure of one engine shortly after takeoff can be broadly categorized into one of three following scenarios.

Landing Gear Down

If the engine failure occurs prior to selecting the landing gear to the UP position [Figure 13-18]: Keep the nose as straight as possible, close both throttles, adjust pitch attitude to maintain adequate airspeed, and descend to the runway. Concentrate on a normal landing and do not force the aircraft on the ground. Land on the remaining runway or overrun. Depending upon how quickly the pilot reacts to the sudden yaw, the airplane may run off the side of the runway by the time action is taken. There are really no other practical options. As discussed earlier, the chances of maintaining directional control while retracting the flaps (if extended), landing gear, feathering the propeller, and accelerating are minimal. On some airplanes with a single-engine-driven hydraulic pump, failure of that engine means the only way to raise the landing gear is to allow the engine to windmill or to use a hand pump. This is not a viable alternative during takeoff.

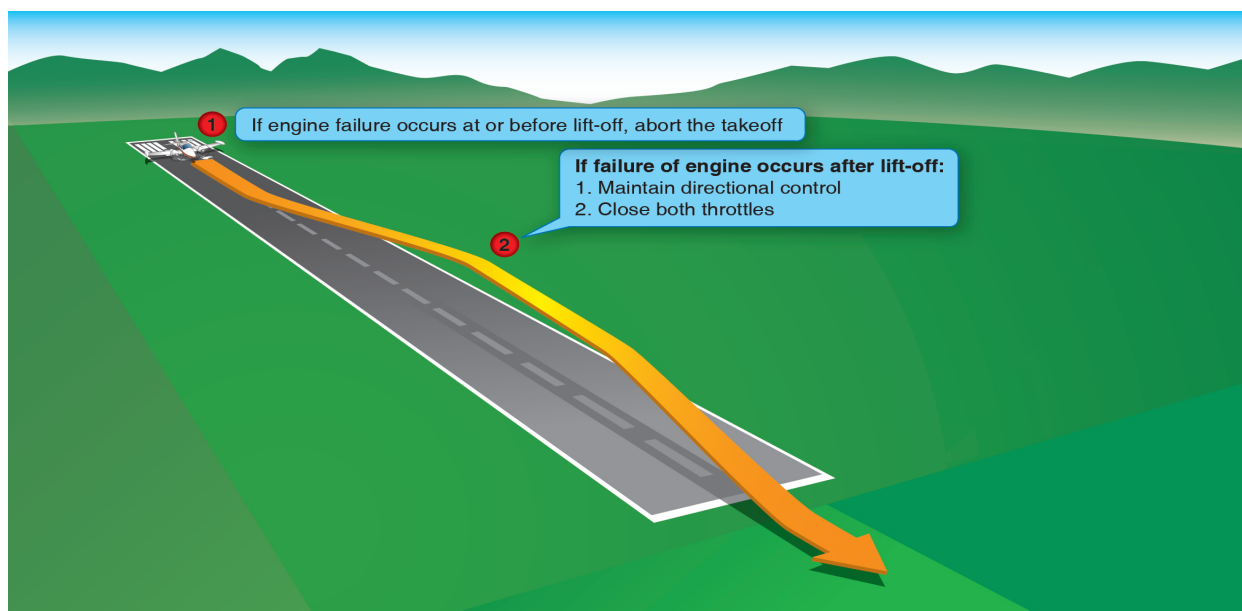


Figure 13-18. Engine failure on takeoff, landing gear down.

Landing Gear Control Selected Up, Single-Engine Climb Performance Inadequate

When operating near or above the single-engine ceiling and an engine failure is experienced shortly after lift-off, a landing needs to be accomplished on whatever essentially lies ahead. [Figure 13-19] There is also the option of continuing ahead, in a descent at V_{YSE} with the remaining engine producing power, as long as the pilot is not tempted to remain airborne beyond the airplane's performance capability. Remaining airborne and bleeding off airspeed in a futile attempt to maintain altitude is almost invariably fatal. Landing under control is paramount. The greatest hazard in a single-engine takeoff is attempting to fly when it is not within the performance capability of the airplane to do so. An accident is inevitable.

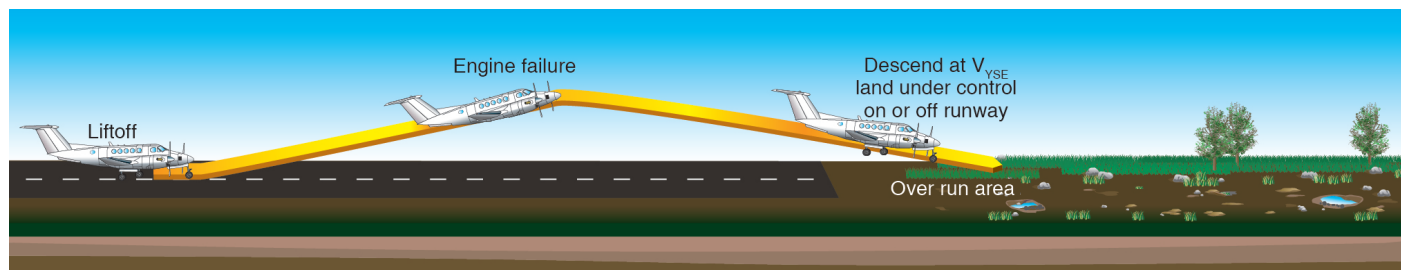


Figure 13-19. Engine failure on takeoff, inadequate climb performance.

Analysis of engine failures on takeoff reveals a very high success rate of off-airport engine inoperative landings when the airplane is landed under control. Analysis also reveals a very high fatality rate in stall spin accidents when the pilot attempts flight beyond the performance capability of the airplane.

As mentioned previously, if the airplane's landing gear retraction mechanism is dependent upon hydraulic pressure from a certain engine-driven pump, failure of that engine can mean a loss of hundreds of feet of altitude as the pilot either windmills the engine to provide hydraulic pressure to raise the gear or raises it manually with a backup pump.

Landing Gear Control Selected Up, Single-Engine Climb Performance Adequate

If the single-engine rate of climb is adequate, the procedures for continued flight should be followed. [Figure 13-20] There are four areas of concern: control, configuration, climb, and checklist.

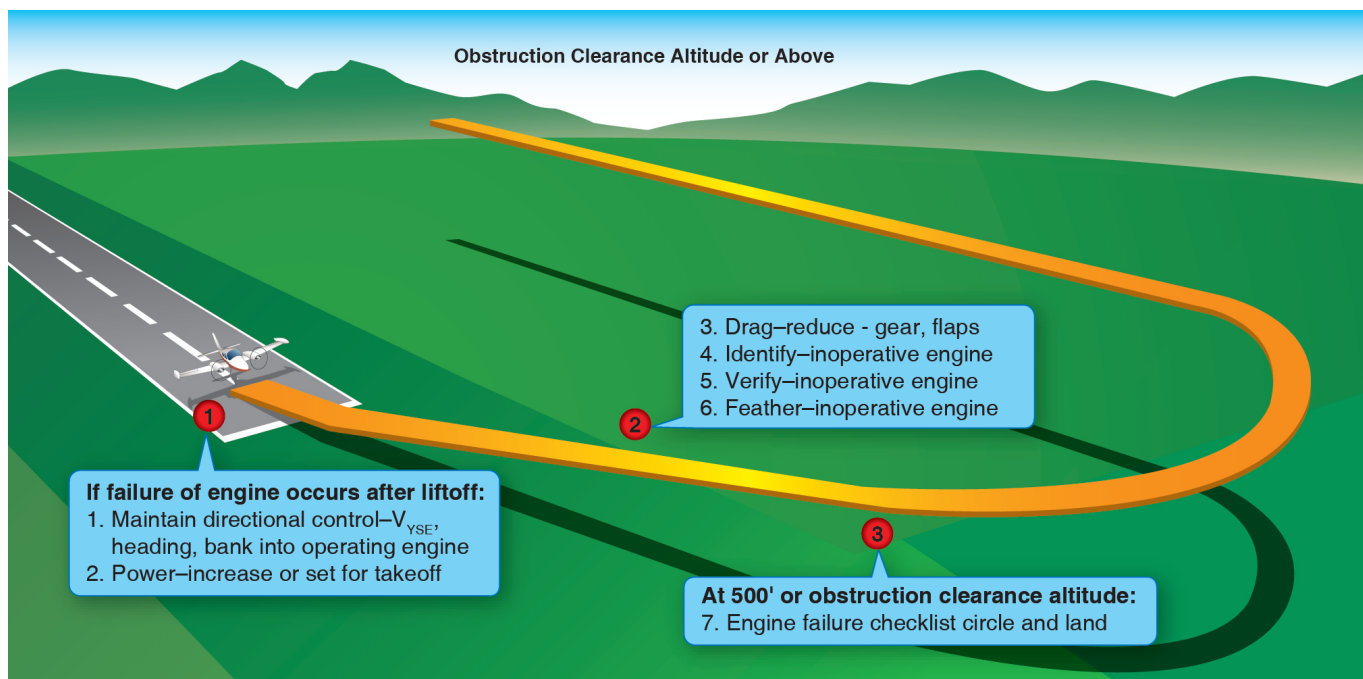


Figure 13-20. Landing gear up—adequate climb performance.

Control

The first consideration following engine failure during takeoff is to maintain control of the airplane. Maintaining directional control with prompt and often aggressive rudder application and STOPPING THE YAW is critical to the safety of flight. Ensure that airspeed stays above V_{MC} . If the yaw cannot be controlled with full rudder applied, reducing thrust on the operative engine is the only alternative. Attempting to correct the roll with aileron without first applying rudder increases drag and adverse yaw and further degrades directional control. After rudder is applied to stop the yaw, a slight amount of aileron should be used to bank the airplane toward the operative engine. This is the most efficient way to control the aircraft, minimize drag, and gain the most performance. Control forces, particularly on the rudder, may be high. The pitch attitude for V_{YSE} has to be lowered from that of V_Y . At least 5° and a maximum of 10° of bank toward the operative engine should be used initially to stop the yaw and maintain directional control. This initial bank input is held only momentarily, just long enough to establish or ensure directional control. Climb performance suffers when bank angles exceed approximately 2 or 3° , but obtaining and maintaining V_{YSE} and directional control are paramount. Trim should be adjusted to lower the control forces.

Configuration

The memory items from the engine failure after takeoff checklist should be promptly executed to configure the airplane for climb. [Figure 13-21] The specific procedures to follow are found in the AFM/POH and checklist for the particular airplane. Most direct the pilot to assume V_{YSE} , set takeoff power, retract the flaps and landing gear, identify, verify, and feather the failed engine. (On some airplanes, the landing gear is to be retracted before the flaps.)